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VIDEO IN INTERACTIONIST RESEARCH

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Video in social research[1]

This chapter gives an overview of the use of video in the study of interaction. Following a short historical sketch of the forms and variety of use of video in research, the discussion will explore, in detail, the concept of 'videography', which involves using interpretive methodologies to analyze audiovisual recordings produced by researchers in everyday situations.

The development and wide distribution of video technology has provided new opportunities both in the study of audiovisual 'products' (e.g., films and videos for public and private consumption) and of social phenomena, especially processes of interaction. With the help of the camera, the details of bodily interactions can be explored in great detail; indeed, the transformative impact of video technology for interaction analysis is so great that it has been compared to the impact the microscope had on biology (Büscher, 2005; Heath, 1986: 4). These technological developments have sparked the development of a variety of approaches in many disciplines, such as psychology, ethology, linguistics, education, sociology, etc. Unlike other technologies, video recording conserve the sequential order of the ongoing vocal and visible action. However, it is important to emphasize that this does not mean a video can be considered an 'objective' representation of reality, as recordings are always the result of an active participation (construction) in a social situation, requiring choices such as when and whom to record and on what to focus. The recordings preserve the temporal organization of the setting as they occur in front of the camera. In contrast to other forms of observation techniques, such as traditional participant observation, in which the researcher is armed only with pen and paper and is often under pressure to 'act' in the situation, the camera can record subtle details of talk and body movements. Through video, one can capture people's gestures, glances and facial expressions, and video can record the visual qualities, aesthetic forms and symbols that are present in the space and situation. The richness of video data has attracted many researchers and has influenced several research traditions. Different disciplines in combination with varying research interests have produced a field of specific approaches that can be characterized through some basic distinctions:

1 Video and film recordings come from a variety of sources. The first source is video recordings that are produced by researchers that are interested in some phenomenon and use the camera

to record it. However, others also produce recordings, such as filmmakers, video amateurs on YouTube or participants in collaborative research. Depending on the recording, the analytic focus shifts, and each of these forms can be a source of interest for researchers.

2 In the first case, video is mostly used as a research tool to study processes that happen in front of the camera: the specific qualities of the recording are not the main topic of the analysis but, rather, what is going on in front of the lens. When video has been produced by others, the questions of how and why it was recorded come into focus, and the recording itself is treated as a document of the field. Often, the particular aesthetic qualities of the recording and the specifics of the genre are the focus of the research.

3 Video can be analyzed in a variety of ways. On the one hand, there are approaches, mainly developed in psychology but also well established in other fields, such as education (Angelillo et al., 2009), that often focus on a standardized, quantitative analysis of video data. Predefined categories that follow a theoretical model are applied to the video data, such as by tracing emotions through people's facial expressions (Ekman et al., 1972) or marking certain forms of action through a pre-defined coding scheme. This process is controlled by intercoder reliability (Lavrakas, 2008) and is often automatized. The frequency and correlation of codes is then quantified and used for further analysis. Contrary to this tradition, interpretative video analysis does usually not use predefined codes but focuses on the detailed description, reconstruction and interpretation of the recordings. Those approaches usually develop theories based on the data and try to uncover the specific meaning in said data.[2]

4 Video can be used as a resource for analysis and as a medium for presentation itself. Traditions such as ethnographic or participatory film use video as a medium for the presentation of research findings. In this case, the specific aesthetic qualities of the produced film are an important part of the research product. In other contexts, the recordings are not treated as the product, but videos are analyzed and findings are transformed into numerical data, statistics or texts, although some visualizations are often used to highlight the findings based on the analysis. For interactionist research, the use of recordings of naturally occurring, everyday situations (rather than artificial contexts, such as laboratories) that are analyzed through interpretive methodology is of particular concern. In the following section, I will give a historical sketch of this research tradition.

History of the use of video for the analysis of interaction

The beginning of the history of video-based research in anthropology and sociology is often ascribed to Gregory Bateson and Margaret Mead's pioneering research of 'The Balinese Character' (Bateson and Mead, 1942). In the subsequent decades, Bateson, together with an interdisciplinary research group based in Palo Alto, California, conducted microanalytic examinations of film sequences. In their work, this research group developed a sophisticated transcription system to reveal the 'Natural History of an Interview' (Pittinger et al., 1960) that reflects the most diverse modalities of communication in the form of a detailed score. This project is the first approach that uses video recording as principal data that are scrutinized in great detail. The research group's initially interdisciplinary behavioral research influenced the development of context analysis (Scheflen, 1972) and structural analysis (Argyle, 1988) and is also the origin of multimodality and gesture research (Kress, 2010).

In Germany in the late 1970s, Thomas Luckmann and his colleagues used Alfred Schutz's phenomenological perspective to work on a similar project from a sociological perspective. In

their research, the focus was on interaction in interviews recorded in a media room with four cameras (Luckmann and Gross, 1977). The aim of this empirical project was to enhance methodology by reflecting on the process of data collection and particularly on how social scientific data are generated by video-recording interaction. By adding a reflective process to the research, Luckmann and Peter Gross ensure that the use of video as principal data does not become methodically naïve and scientistic.

Symbolic interactionists have used audiovisual recordings to document and analyze patterns of behavior since the 1960s. This research was pioneered at the New Iowa School of Symbolic Interactionism (cf. Katovich, this volume; Miller, 2011), where experiments in laboratories have been conducted to produce precise analytic descriptions of social forms and processes of interaction. This research was based on Mead's and Blumer's perspectives and methods as well as on concepts developed by Georg Simmel and Erving Goffman. Although their research started in the laboratory, an important step in the development of this research program involved moving into natural settings to study areas such as therapeutic counseling (Hardesty, 1987) and openings in interaction (Hintz and Miller, 1995).

Those developments in symbolic interactionism evolved in parallel, but largely independent from, ethnomethodological conversation analysis (EMCA) that also examines recorded data to reveal the organization of interaction. Based on Harold Garfinkel's (1967) development of ethnomethodology (Turowetz and Rawls, in this volume; vom Lehn, 2014) conversation analysis emerged as an area of research that uses audio recordings to study people's reasoning methods in everyday conversations (Sacks, 1992; Sacks et al., 1973). Research within conversation analysis aims to understand the organization of talk, such as the organization of speaker changes (turn-taking) or the organization of speech in successive pairs (adjacency pairs).

One of the aims of the ethnomethodologically informed tradition of interaction analysis is to uncover the sequentially interrelated action of the participants and to examine the ways that they constantly produce and jointly develop social reality. Video-based interaction analysis expands the analytic possibilities of this purpose by opening the focus beyond just spoken utterances and incorporating visually comprehensible communicative 'modalities', such as gesture, body movement and eye movements, and placing them in the foreground of analysis.

The absence of visual data in conversation analysis drew researchers' interest to the importance of other modes of communication for contextualizing talk. Charles Goodwin, who initially concentrated on the interplay of linguistic and gestural patterns of action (1981, 1986), was an important figure in introducing a focus on the visual. Similarly, Christian Heath's (1986) video-based analysis of medical examinations and Frederick Erickson and Jeffrey J. Schultz's (1982) work on the interaction situation of school application interviews were both important contributions to the field due to the introduction of video to the field and opening up new areas of research.

Due to technical development and increasingly widespread availability, video recording and analysis became easier and a more common form of social scientific data in the 1980s. Video technology gained wider recognition through its use in the field of workplace studies, which made the interplay of human interaction and technical artifacts the subject of videographic investigations (Luff et al., 2000). In this context, Lucy A. Suchman and Randall H. Trigg (1991), Brigitte Jordan and Austin Henderson (1995) as well as Heath (1997) and Michèle Lacoste (1997) made initial proposals for the methodology of video analysis, which have been developed in recent years (Heath et al., 2010; Knoblauch et al., 2013; vom Lehn, 2018), especially highlighting sequential analysis of video data.

Videography

Videography is a specific methodical approach that, as the name indicates, is characterized by a close embedding in ethnographic field research. It aims to investigate the social situations from which video recordings are made, focusing on the recording and analysis of social interactions in the 'natural' contexts of their occurrence. Studies are based on recordings made by the researchers themselves for the purpose of analysis. Videography uses the methodological principles developed in ethnomethodological interaction analysis but incorporates the ethnographic knowledge the researcher has gained during fieldwork. Therefore, videography builds on the traditions introduced before but explicitly emphasizes the ethnographic side in which the researching subject plays an important role and whose knowledge ultimately also provides the ineluctable background for the analysis. Videography is thus not a purely 'visual analysis' in the narrower sense, as it focuses also on the (cultural) context of action. While sequence-analytical methods are used for the analysis, videography explores larger forms, patterns and genres of the observed processes and their location in the ethnographic context. In this sense, videography pursues a clearer sociological question than is the case in the purely conversation-analytically framed video analyses present in linguistics.[3]

Case study: videographic investigation of the analysis activity in a market research company

To illustrate the qualities of videography, I next present short excerpts of an example focusing on work practices in a market research company. The example is part of a comparative study of a variety of 'vernacular' forms of video analysis in professional fields.[4] In the study, I have examined video recordings of professionals who analyze video recordings of footballers, policemen and consumers to provide information in support of football coaches and managers, the police and market researchers. With the discussion of a particular case taken from my recordings of market researchers, I intend to provide insight into an exemplary research project as well as outlining typical steps in the research process and general principles.

The wider project this example is taken from aims at understanding the professional interpretation of video data in different fields. In this case, I am interested in how market researchers deal with video technologies and how they solve problems arising in their work.[5] As many of those problems have communicative dimensions, my questions relate to concepts such as 'articulation work' (Corbin and Strauss, 1993) and aim to produce understanding of the routine communicative work involved in video interpretation.

The company being researched specializes in the use of eye tracking and other advanced technologies to study the behavior of consumers, and it conducts studies for larger companies in the media, retail and electronics sectors. Within the framework of a focused ethnography (Knoblauch, 2005), in my fieldwork I took on the role of a 'research intern' who was involved in the various activities (from coding videos to the evaluation and preparation of final presentations). In the course of my work in the field, my theoretical interest led me to focus on particular on two types of situations that proved to be particularly relevant to my research and that always occurred when the employees were confronted with new video data: agreements and consultations in cases that were considered 'problematic' and the training of new employees in concrete projects. During my participation in the field, I had already witnessed such situations several times. Over time, I also gained trust in the field and was able to use a camera without causing much disturbance to the work I was observing. Since I was particularly interested in the

knowledge that professional video analysts use in their work, the previously mentioned 'problematic' situations are particularly instructive.[6] Videography operates with the basic assumption that participants themselves always have a practical understanding and (routine or institutionalized) solutions for typical problems, which the researcher can reconstruct and use as a resource of knowledge production. Problematic situations, therefore, are often a good starting point for analysis because, here, participants observably produce such routine and institutionalized solutions through communicative actions.

In recording these interactions, the focus of the video camera is placed on the communication between the participants and on any objects to which they refer in the interaction – in my case, this was the screen showing an eye-tracking recording as well as a series of tables and software tools.[7] After selecting relevant fragments from the data corpus, the fine-grained analysis starts with the creation of transcriptions. The transcription of talk has been derived from conversation analysis. Transcripts of talk need to reflect speaker turns, pauses and overlaps (following transcription conventions such as those of Gail Jefferson [2004] or GAT [Selting et al., 1998]). Producing transcripts of body movements, including gesture, eye and head movements as well as facial expressions, is more difficult as, thus far, a transcription system comparable to Jefferson's (2004) system for conversation analysis has not been developed.[8] It is important to note that transcripts are only aids for the examination of the videos as they help to make the sequential order of actions visible. The principal focus of the analysis, however, remains with the video recordings.

Example analysis 'coding experiment'[9]

In the following, I discuss a short fragment of analysis in which I will explain the context of the situation, and then an analysis of the interaction. After the presentation of the fragment, I will explain the principles of the analysis of the video data. I start with presenting the transcript of the situation, which will be elaborated on in more detail in the following paragraphs.

Clarification of context knowledge

The beginning of any videographic analysis is the attempt to make sense of the recording. To understand exactly what is happening, ethnographic knowledge is needed. Only on the basis of such a 'typical understanding',[10] which can be called 'basic hermeneutics', can an in-depth interaction analysis be carried out.

Two members of the analysis team, Melanie and Jonathan, are in charge of the 'refrigerator project'. In this case, the project is a user experience experiment in which test persons were asked to perform various tasks on the refrigerator, such as 'B3: Put in the leftover chocolate and small bread'. The videos of these action have already been recorded in Asia and transferred to the company's server. Melanie and Jonathan have already looked over most of the tasks and have now arrived at the last and most complicated task, Task Z: 'Freely arrange all food items'. The interest here is in how the sorting was carried out and where the respective foodstuffs (items) remain in the refrigerator at the end of this task. However, since there was no final recording on site, and it cannot be clearly seen directly from the video images – as the two 'Eyetrack' employees quickly recognize – they are looking for a simple way to capture this information from the individual 'Interacts' (a specific term the participants use to describe coded activities).

01		
02	J	ne we do this now
03	M	(for all I care)
04		(0,5)
05	J	we code this now
06	M	mhmmhmmm <laugh>
07		we look a bit
08		what happens () we have to stop
09		we have to stop
10	J	open
11	M	yes
12		(4s)
13	J	touch touch
14	M	yeaheah
15	J	rearrange start
16	M	she there, she brings
17		everything on the:eh them
18		clears everything out.
19		but we don't have to
20		code, right?
21	J	(we should)
22		let this happen in
23		normal speed
24		(2s)
25	M	now she takes the ()
26		of course she does not
27		follow the
28		coding rules at all
29	J	to the what? no, (she does what she wants)

Figure 31.1 Fragment M1a 'Coding attempt'; time code 1:25.

The previous description is already a first interpretation, and it is based on the ethnographic knowledge of the researcher,[11] which forms the basis for the contextual description. In the example analysis presented here, we can see an account of the organizational setting, the unquestioned work routines of relevance to the actors, and the tasks of the work assignment. Although these features become visible in the data – since both employees represent them in their actions to a certain extent – contextual knowledge is necessary to gain a precise understanding of them.[12] While many questions can be answered from this contextual knowledge, the sequential organization of the actions is derived from the analysis of the video. The primary analysis must continue to be based on the description of the respective communicative processes recorded in the video material and sequence analysis used to reveal how the participants themselves interpret each other's actions.

The two participants face the problem that every single movement of the objects in the video must be noted to reconstruct the sum of the end positions. To do this, every single 'Interact event' must be recorded cleanly, which seems to be quite an intricate task. Melanie and Jonathan have become aware of this problem and have now come together to find a solution. After Melanie has found the relevant point of time in the material, Jonathan suggests that they simply try coding together (Lines 2 and 5). Melanie has already indicated in an earlier conversation that she wants to talk to the project manager to make sure this work (against the background of a close deadline) is actually necessary. Jonathan proposes to use the waiting time and to carry out a manual 'trial coding'. He leans forward, grabs the mouse, plays the video with a click on the start button (on the right-hand screen; tables with the item categories are displayed on the left). In this way, the participants open up one of the typical situations for the field, in which they discuss problems of the further procedure 'on the material'. To do this, they first try to view the videos and define the problem or edit it directly. By grasping the writing pad and taking a 'spectator posture' leaned back, he indicates a change into the newly framed form of observation. Melanie laughs and mumbles a not-so-confident 'for all I care' (Line 3) but immediately grabs the keyboard and confirms that she can also 'stop' and control the video if necessary. Both move into an observer position. Jonathan starts commenting on the video. He sees how the test person approaches the refrigerator in the video: she stretches her hands out, and Jonathan comments shortly after the visible opening of the refrigerator with the code 'open' (Line 10) and writes down a note. Melanie pauses the playback very briefly at the moment of opening, only to continue it directly after Jonathan's utterance ('open') is finished. Jonathan then continues with 'touch, touch' (Line 13) and 'rearrange start' (Line 15) – he speaks only in codes, as if he would reproduce the 'clicks' of a coding person during the evaluation. In contrast to general comments when viewing or openly interpreting the description of the visible, here a certain purposefulness of viewing is produced, which could be described as an 'epistemic attitude'.

Principles of sequential analysis

For the detailed analysis of data, ethnomethodology provides a critical resource in videography. Therefore, interpretation does not concentrate on the 'what' but on the how of the production of actions (Why this action now and in this particular way?). We assume that the observable forms of action are the result of different 'methods' used by the participants. The discussion of a problem or a group meeting are constituted in particular ways of, say, asking questions,

formulating responses, selecting next speakers and organizing and defining the 'business at hand'. All those (communicative) actions constitute what is going on, and the primary task of interpretation, therefore, is to reconstruct how certain actions are carried out, how they create certain situations and what constitutes their specificity in their respective context.

In the example, the 'business at hand' is made clear by the fact that the actors involved indicate to each other that they are starting a meaningful sequence action, in this case, the 'trial coding'. In part, this consists in playing the video, taking a reclined posture and the mutual confirmation of the beginning of this new activity.

For the joint processing of the video data, every single turn of action, even the smallest glance, is potentially meaningful. The next task of analysis, therefore, is to find order in these actions. An additional assumption is helpful here: observable features of action are not regarded as the result of factors foreign to the action but, rather, are treated as achieved by the actor. This means that, in our analysis, we do not apply abstract concepts such as psychological drives, habitus or environmental influences to explain the actions. In this perspective, even behavior that might be considered usually as 'unconscious', such as the little slip-ups of everyday speech or grammatical mistakes, can be pointed out as extraordinarily precisely coordinated courses of action, and therefore their analysis can provide important insights.

The orderliness is due to another fundamental methodological principle: reflexivity. Reflexivity in this context means that, in action, one not only acts but, at the same time, always indicates or points out how that action is to be understood and, in this way, makes it intelligible to other people. This means that action becomes intelligible through its production.

Ethnomethodology describes this process in terms of 'accounts': one does not simply ask a question; rather, the way the utterance is produced renders the utterance intelligible as a question.[13] This reflexivity opens up a methodical approach to data analysis: because the cooperation in action is based on the understanding of the actors involved, the researchers can also understand these processes if they have the necessary everyday or cultural competence to do so. The starting point of the interpretation is, therefore, everyday knowledge.

A second basic method of interpreting utterances is related to the competence of those acting and looking at how actors interpret the actions of the other people in the situation. Here it is assumed that a subsequent expression or action in a conversational/action sequence is not only an action but also an interpretation of how the previous action was understood. The next 'move' is by no means regarded as a mere continuation but as an interpretation of the first move. For example, we might ask whether the statement 'we should let this happen at normal speed' (Lines 21–23) is really an invitation or whether it is an ironic reference to the complexity of the event. This is where the logic of sequence analysis unfolds: whether Melanie's interpretation is 'adequate' becomes apparent in Jonathan's subsequent move in which he might show himself to be angry that Melanie has not slowed down the video; reach for the keyboard to change it himself; or make evident 'metacommunicatively' that the demand has not been implemented and thus set about a 'repair'. In the example, however, Jonathan remains silent for a moment and then continues with another 'ironic comment' on the data, which aligns with Melanie's muttered and aborted attempt at description (Line 25, 'now she takes the').

While the understanding of the participants' actions is hermeneutically based on the researchers' own (ethnographically expanded) knowledge of interactions, the analysis is based on the audiovisual recording. All visible (and audible) aspects of the situation that are recorded, such as gestures, facial expressions and body movements, are treated as being potentially relevant to the analysis, and it is the task of the analyst to reconstruct the relevant sequential organization. The relevance of specific aspects is not determined a priori, but the recorded participants themselves

make clear what is relevant for their actions, and we use this as an interpretive resource to make sense of the action. For example, in relation to the data being explored here, we may ask whether the people involved look at a screen before they press a button, thereby coordinating their joint activities. It is important to note that even a single move can involve a multi-layered sequence of actions and that the individual 'action turn' itself must be seen as a complex context in which visual and vocal parts interact. Not all actions are analytically relevant – only actions that can be seen to have a recognizable connection with a preceding action are treated as pertinent. Emanuel Schegloff (1968) uses the notion of *relevance criterion* to highlight that any phenomena accounted for in the situation by the participants are relevant in the situation and, therefore, should be relevant for the analysis. In terms of research practice, this idea has implications for the production of transcripts, which are not made to depict all modalities in their entirety but to isolate the relevant sequence of turns and to make it comprehensible in a suitable form. In other words, transcripts do not represent every feature of action, just those that are shown to have demonstrable relevance to the analysis.

Through the course of the analysis, an increasingly precise understanding of the interaction recorded in the video is gradually developed. Analysis reconstructs how the actors bring a certain *order* to their actions, how they relate to each other, how they coordinate to produce an action result. Analysis, therefore, essentially focuses on what is called the 'intrinsic connection'. This means that reference is not made to knowledge about the social situation of the actors, their psychological constitution or their motivations expressed outside the record but that the recorded processes are viewed within their systematically organized context. Thus, individual turns in talk (or body movement) and their sequential relationship are the basic unit of analysis.

The example discussed here has made it clear that the analysis of video interactions I performed is not merely a behavioristic description of formal behavior: rather, it is (a) about determining the resources, knowledge and practical considerations pursued by the actors themselves in producing their social actions and activities *in situ*; (b) about exploring and exploiting the sequential structure to find out how the actors orient themselves toward each other and coordinate them with the actions of others; and (c) about embedding observable actions in broader action contexts (Heath, 1997).

Connecting the sequential analysis to theoretical concepts

The detailed analysis of the sequential organization gives insights into the 'members methods' and practices of interpretation, and it uncovers the dimensions and knowledge that constitute the actual work as it unfolds in the situations. However, to understand the specifics of such organized work, other dimensions, such as the organizational forms, the routines and the specific context of the field (in this case, the social world of market research) come into play. The substantive differences to the organizational relevancies, which can be considered part of the institution, are accounted for and reproduced in ongoing practice. These forms of knowledge and practice can be made visible by comparing situations across different cases or even fields. This is a typical procedure in the tradition of focused ethnography (Knoblauch, 2005), which studies common communicative situations to understand and explore a variety of social worlds. For example, the wider study from which the example discussed here is taken has explored the professional practices of video analysis not only in market research but also in other 'vernacular fields', such as sports training and police work (Tuma, 2017). Those comparisons were instructive in discovering the similarities as well as the specific practices in these different fields. However, to make these comparisons, it is necessary to draw on sociological concepts that cover organizational

and trans-situational phenomena. In this specific case, for example Anselm Strauss' and Elihu M. Gerson's (Gerson, 1983) concept of the work arc has been particularly useful for my work.

> An arc of work consists of all the tasks which go into carrying out a particular project. These include, not only applying professional skills, but coordinating with all the other technical specialists who might be involved with a case, supervising technicians and assistants, dealing with acts of God, regulatory agencies, defective equipment, recalcitrant suppliers, and many other contingencies.
>
> *(Gerson, 1983: 3)*

This concept allows for the integration of the situational analysis in a wider institutional context and to uncover the specifics of the respective research fields. The specifics of situations that became apparent in analysis could, through comparison, be linked specific arcs of work, as present in the organizations I studied. Thus, the investigation of the ways in which video analysis is conducted refers not only to different forms and arcs of work but also to the different forms of organization (such as the university and the company) and the boundaries and transitions between social fields and 'systems' (e.g., social science, the economy) and is able to deal with the question of the 'social-scientification' of knowledge, the tendencies and problems of professionalization and even the characteristics of contemporary knowledge societies. With the help of theoretical concepts, video research can embed their results within a framework that takes seriously the respective 'stock of knowledge' of the participants.[14] Such frameworks also established a direct connection to sociological and general social and cultural theory, which go beyond the situationist 'microsociological' concern with specific actions.

Notes

1 This chapter is based on earlier work (Knoblauch et al., 2013; Tuma, 2017).
2 For a wider overview of the use of video in educational research and the learning sciences, see Ricki Goldman and colleagues' edited collection 'Video in the Learning Sciences' (2007).
3 Whereas conventional conversation analytic approaches are less interested in the specific contexts but rather in specific forms of interaction, videography combines the strength of ethnography and video analysis. While video records the ongoing processes and visual details, ethnographic fieldnotes help to keep record of the subjective perspective of the researchers well as other aspects not captured by the camera.
4 The term vernacular highlights the contrast to academic social-scientific use of video in settings like market research, sports training or police work (cf. Tuma, 2017).
5 This is a kind of reflective research since video technology is used to investigate the use of video technology.
6 The analysis of the videographic data is embedded in a framework, which, in its basic principles, follows the principle of grounded theory. For example, strategies of theoretical sampling (selecting cases for minimal and maximal contrast) are suitable to explore the dimensions of the phenomena.
7 Practical advice (e.g., on the positioning of the camera and other can be found in Heath et al., 2010: 37; Knoblauch et al., 2014: 63).
8 Heath and colleagues' book (2010) provides information on the transcription of body movements.
9 The empirical section comes from a more comprehensive study on video professionals in everyday life (Tuma, 2017: 298 ff.). This is an English translation from the German original transcription.
10 Cf. Schutz (1972).
11 Video analysis is performed in data sessions in which a group of researchers with different levels of knowledge about the respective date work together. Since those who were not present in the recorded situations do not know the context, the explanations given by the person that had done the fieldwork (in this case, me) and the questions asked by those who have not yet been involved in the research

process represent an important resource for determining which contexts (that are not visible on the video) are nevertheless systematically necessary to understand what is happening.

12 Usually, it is helpful or even necessary to call in experts from the field for the data sessions if it concerns special knowledge stocks. Schubert has developed an elicitation procedure for this purpose, using the example of the practice in the operating theatre (2006).

13 This means an utterance is context shaped and context renewing (cf. Heritage, 1991: 242).

14 As with videographic research, the ethnographer obtains knowledge during fieldwork from the participants, here it refers to both.

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